CHAPTER II

THE NATURE AND FUNCTION OF ARTHĀPATTI

The present chapter is a sincere attempt to discuss the traditional issue of the nature and scope of our knowledge claims by means of Arthāpatti or presumption or postulation. The three views on the nature of Arthāpatti are considered as they stand. These are 1) Bhaṭṭa's view that presumption is a means of resolving a conflict; 2) Prabhākara's view that presumption is characterised by an element of doubt and 3) Advaita interpretation that presumption is a hypothesis. The chapter then compares the different conceptions of Arthāpatti.

In Indian philosophy Arthāpatti seems to have been interpreted in two principal senses. Vātsyāyana representation of it as a sort of implication of what is given in another form would bring it under the class of immediate inference. According to him it is apprehension from opposition of what is stated. From negative comes the opposed positive. His own example is: If we have the statement that when there are no clouds it does not rain, we may get, by direct implication of opposition, when it rains there are clouds.

Among the schools of Indian philosophy, it is the Mīmāṁsa (including the two branches respectively headed by Prabhākara and Kumārila Bhaṭṭa) and the Advaita Vedānta which alone recognises presumption as a separate or independent source of cognition. Who gives us an authoritative exposition of Arthāpatti? In the view of the former, the admission of presumption is a necessity when there arises a conflict between two well known facts followed by a demand for its resolution. Accordingly, the prominent members of the Mīmāṁsa school including Śabara, have defined presumption as the assumption of an unperceived fact apart from which the conflict between two actually perceived or known facts cannot be resolved.[1] The typical example of presumption which has been of common use in the Mīmāṁsa school of philosophy is as follows. If we know that Devadatta is alive and at the same time find that he is absent from home, there arises a conflict between his being alive and his being absent from home, which cannot be resolved except on the assumption that he lives somewhere away from home.

While the Bhaṭṭa school of Pūrva Mīmāṁsa, like that of Advaita Vedānta recognises six pramāṇas, the Prabhākara school restricts them to five. The Prabhākara refuses to concede the status of an independent source of knowledge (Pramāṇatva) to anupalabdhi or non-comprehension, while the Bhaṭṭas elevate it to the rank of a pramāṇa. Apart

from perception, inference, comparison and verbal testimony, presumption or Arthāpatti is accepted as a valid and independent source of knowledge by the two schools of Pūrva Mīmāṁsa, though the Prabhākaras and the Bhaṭṭas do differ regarding some important aspects of the nature and the range of Arthāpatti.

When the perception of a thing cannot be explained without the assumption of another thing, this assumption is called 'presumption' or 'Arthāpatti', that is, here the knowledge of the fact explained of the word 'Arthāpatti, is the assumption, supposition, or postulation of a fact (Arthā=fact, āpatti=kalpana=supposition).[2] 'Artha' which means 'significance' 'meaning' and 'Āpathi' which means 'difficulty'. Thus etymologically 'Arthāpatti' means a difficulty that arises due to the lack of adequate meaning of significance furnished by presented expressions. The problem, thus, is semantic and specially that of semantic gap, that needs to be bridged up to be able to bring out the intended and requisite semantic import. For e.g. Devadatta is alive and we do not find him in the house. We have the certainty about his life. Then the conflict that arises between these two truths is explained by another truth or assumption viz. that he is outside the house. This assumption is Arthāpatti. Arthāpatti presents an object presumed to exist without which another object seen or heard or cannot be spoken of an existent. As

Hiriyanna puts it, "Arthāpatti is a postulation of something to account for what apparently clashes with experience and therefore is of the nature of hypothesis. We may otherwise state it as rendering explicit what is already implicit in two truths both of which have been properly tested but which appear mutually incompatible. Thus if we know that Devadatta is alive and do not find him in his house, we conclude that he should be somewhere else."[2]

Indian philosophers have shown four alternative attitudes to Arthāpatti down through the ages. There are first some, who postulate it as a pramāṇa in its own right, second, others who hold it to be a species of some other pramāṇa; third, still others who do not recognize it as a pramāṇa or a species of some pramāṇa, and fourth, the rest who reject it along with all other pramāṇas.[3]

Arthāpatti is the necessary supposition of an unperceived fact which alone can explain a phenomenon that demands explanation. When a given phenomenon is such that one cannot understand it in any way without supposing some other fact, one has to postulate this other fact by way of explaining the phenomenon. This process of explaining an otherwise inexplicable phenomenon by the affirmation of explaining the fact is called Arthāpatti.[4]

It is assumption (artti) of a fact (artha) to account for another inexplicable fact. The postulation of a hypothesis to explain the inexplicable fact is called Arthāpatti. It is presumption, postulation, or implication. The knowledge of the fact to be explained (Upapādya). It cannot be explained without postulating his eating at night. In the absence of his eating at night his stoutness cannot be explained. Eating at night explains the unintelligible fact (Upapādaka). This assumption (kalpanā) of hypothesis is called (Arthāpatti). It is the supposition of a cause. The effect is given. The cause is assumed.[5]

We may have a direct knowledge of fact of non-existence, just as we have the knowledge of existent facts. But merely by this we should not conclude that this direct experience is as much a matter of sense perception in the one case as in the other. The truth of the matter is that when the existent is perceived, what is non-existent is not perceived, and therefore directly related in the both cases. Arthāpatti (postulation) is not the deduction of a conclusion from given premises, but the necessary supposition of a general principle as the only explanation of some given facts.[6]

For Immanual Kant existence of God is a postulate of the moral life, not in the sense that it is deducible from certain ethical propositions but in the sense that

it is the only principle which can explain ethical propositions concerning the moral life. So we have to admit memory, non perception and postulation as three distinct ways of knowing in addition to the four recognised by the Naiyāyika.[7]

The charge is often heard against Indian philosophy that its theories are not based on logical reasoning but on religious authority and, therefore they are dogmatic rather than critical. The Nyāya philosophy is a standing repudiation of this charge. The postulation applies the method of logical criticism to solve the problem of life and reality. It is by means of a sound logic that it tries to ascertain the truth and defend itself against hostile criticism.

Arthāpatti as a source of knowledge consists in the supposition of some unperceived fact which however cannot be explained without some other fact. We have to presuppose or postulate the existence of this other fact even though we do not perceive it. A phenomenon is presented to our experience and we find that there is a seeming contradiction involved in it. One tries to get over this contradiction by supposing someother fact which explains away the contradiction. The given fact which is to be explained is called the Upapādya and that explains it is called the Upapādita. Hence here one proceeds from the knowledge

of something to be explained to the knowledge of the one which explains it, i.e. from the consequence to the ground.[8]

A. THE PŪRVA MĪMĀṀSA CONCEPTION OF ARTHĀPATTI

It is in the Śabhara Bhāṣya on the Sūtras of Jaimini that we find a brief account of Arthāpatti as a pramāṇa. According to Śabara Arthāpatti is the presumption of an object not seen on the gound that a fact already seen or heard would not be possible without that presumption. For instance, if it is found that Devadatta who is alive is not in the house, the presumption would be that he is outside the house, as otherwise the fact of his being alive and being absent in the house would not be explained.[9] Although Śabara's statement is very brief and simple, it raised to a great controversy among the followers of the Mimāṁsa system.

i. Kumārila Bhaṭṭa on Arthāpatti

Kumārila Bhaṭṭa regards presumption as a distinct means of knowledge. He appears to be faithful to the statement of Bhāṣya in his interpretation of Arthāpatti. Kumārila sees some inexplicability in what Śabara calls a fact already seen or heard. In order to make this inexplicability evident Kumārila analyses two facts viz. Devadatta's being alive and subsequent observation of his non-existence

in his house between which he argues the existence of a conflict or contradiction. In order that this conflict or contradiction is resolved Davadatta's existence outside the house is assumed. It is this assumption Kumārila calls Arthāpatti.

Kumārila elaborates Śabara's view in his own way. According to Kumārila, the word Dṛṣṭaḥ in the Bhāṣya means that the fact is known by any of the five means and the Śrutaḥ signifies that it has been learnt from the scriptural or non-scriptural source. Hence, the meaning of Śabara's statement would be that whenever a fact is known to us or learnt from a verbal source seems to be apparently absurd and requires the assumption of some other fact to explain it, it is called Arthāpatti or presumption.[10] Thus it is clear that in Kumārila's view the element which distinguishes Arthāpatti from the other pramāṇas is the presence of inexplicability in some observed or well ascertained fact. Parthasāradhi also says that when we observe that a well ascertained fact cannot be explained without another fact, we presume the latter in order to account for the former and this presumption is Arthāpatti.[11] We know with perfect certainty that a man is alive, yet we do not find him in the house. The man exists, yet he does not exist in the house. This fact appears to be conflicting. How can a man exist and not exist at the same

time? This conflict cannot be resolved unless it is presumed that the man exists outside the house. This supposition of the man's outside existence explains his non-existence in the house. Sucherita Miśtra too reiterates the fact of inexplicability as the crux of Arthāpatti. He states that the basis of presumption is the inexplicability which lays apparent inconsistency of two cognitions. In one instance we find that fire burns the object which comes in contact with it, but in another we find that if some medicine is applied to the object it does not burn. We presume that when the burning power is present burning takes place and when it is destroyed, though the visible form of fire may remain as before, the burning does not take place.[12]

According to Bhaṭṭa Mīmāṁsa the karaṇa or means of such a presumption is the consciousness of an inner contradiction (anupapatti): and the result of the presumption is resolving this contradiction (upapatti). The contradiction here is, of course not real but only apparent. If there is a real contradiction in facts, then there can be no reconciliation at all. For instance one perceives silver in a place from a distance and when he fixes it upon approaching and finds that there is no silver. Between the cognition 'there is silver' and 'there is no silver', there is a real conflict and the conflict can be resolved only by assuming that one of the cognitions is false.

Similarly when someone says that 'there are fruits on the river bank' and another person says that 'there are no fruits on the river bank', the two statements really come into contradiction. Both the statements cannot be accepted. Thus when there is a real conflict the only way of resolving it is in the rejection of one of the alternatives as false. In the case of Arthāpatti, however, both the cognitions are true, though they appear at first sight to be conflicting. Such an apparent contradiction introduces a state of tension in one's mind, because neither any one of the cognitions can be accepted or rejected, nor can they be reconciled together.[13]

The contradiction between the two cognitions which is instrumental to presumption, according to the Bhaṭṭas, is always between two pramāṇas. In the instance cited above the conflict is between Anumāṇa and Anupalabdhi. By Anumāṇa it is known that a living man must be somewhere and from Anupalabdhi it is known that Devadatta does not exist in his house where he would be normally expected. What is known from the inference is that the (living) Devadatta exists somewhere. But there is no specification at this stage as to the exact place where he exists, so that he may also exists in the house. But from non-apprehension he is known not to exist in the house. It is this conflict between inference and non-apprehension that leads

to the presumption that Devadatta exists outside. This presumption of Devadatta's outside existence that explains his non-existence in the house thereby resolving the conflict between the two cognitions.[14] The two means of knowledge which contradict each other and lead to presumption cannot both of them be specific, because, if they were so, they could be reconciled with each other. For instance, the pramāṇas 'there is silver' and 'there is no silver' are both specific and hence irreconcilable. Thus of the two conflicting pramāṇas, which lead to presumption, one of them must be general and the other specific.[15]

The words 'Dṛṣṭaḥ Śruto vā' in Śabara's statement do not appear to refer to two different forms of Arthāpatti, viz. Dṛṣṭārthapātti or presumption from the seen and Śrutārthāpatti or presumption from the heard. Śabara has given only one example of Arthāpatti, but in case if he intended two forms of Arthāpatti, he should have given two instead of one. Hence, despite the Bhāṣya's mention of only two forms of cognitions.

According to Kumārila the words 'dṛṣṭaḥ śrutova' in Bhāṣya refer to two kinds of Arthāpatti, e.g. Dṛṣṭārthāpatti and 'Śrutārthāpatti. The word 'dṛṣṭaḥ' (seen) stands for all the six means of condition perception, inference, comparison, verbal testimony and negation). The word 'śruta' (heard) refers to the presumption of a

fact. 'Devadatta who is fat, does not take his meal during the day'. On hearing such assertion, we arrive at the idea of 'Devadatta's eating at night', Kumārila holds this to be a distinctive type of knowledge and calls it '<u>Śrutārthāpatti</u>'. Śalikanātha says that what is presumed on hearing the sentence, 'Caitra who is fat does not eat during the day', is the fact of eating at night and not the sentence, 'he eats at night. The inexplicability that is removed by the presumption consists in the conflict between fatness and fasting and not between the sentences, 'Caitra is fat' and 'He does not eat in the day'. So, the conflict between two facts must be resolved by presuming another fact. Even when the words 'eats at night' are uttered after uttering the sentence 'Caitra who is fat does not eat during the day', the conflict arising in the mind of the person on hearing the latter sentence is not resolved if he does not know the meaning of the word 'night'. Therefore, a conflict is to be resolved through the presumption of a fact and not of words. The only argument that Kumārila offers in favour of <u>Śrutārthāpatti</u> is that all determinate cognitions are accompanied by the memory of words and the cognition resulting from a verbal inconsistency is a determinate cognition. But Śalikanatha has exposed the weakness of this argument and Kumārila's commentators admit the point raised by

him. Kumārila sub-divides Dṛṣṭārthāpatti, into five forms and thus we have six forms of Arthāpatti in all. The example given above is that of abhāvapūrvikā arthāpatti i.e. presumption based on non-apprehension. Devadatta's non-existence in the house is ascertained from non-apprehension and this is a fact which remains inexplainable without the presumption of Devadatta's outside existence. Here the inexplainable lies in the fact given by non-apprehension. But this is not always the case, since the inexplicability may also lie in a fact given by perception or any other pramāṇa. Thus Arthāpatti is of six forms, viz. that based on perception, based on inference, on verbal testimony, on comparison, on another presumption and on non-apprehension.[16]

The first form of Arthāpatti, viz. pratyakṣapūrvikā arthāpatti, is illustrated in the presumption of burning power in fire. In this kind of Arthāpatti the inconsistency lies in a perceived fact. We perceive that fire burns things. This fact remains inexplicable without the presumption of burning power in fire. Power is an imperceptible entity and is considered to be a category different from substance, quality, action and universal. Kumārila does not clearly show in what the inexplicability consists that leads to the presumption of burning power. Sucāritamiśra says that the inexplicability consists in the inconsistency of the perceived fact with another pramāṇa. From

perception it is ascertained that fire burns things. We perceive the form of fire, its conjunction with a thing and then the fact that the thing is burnt. Thus perception reveals that fire is the cause of burning things. But this is found to be inconsistent with the experience that sometimes an object, e.g. a human body, is not burnt when some medicine is applied to it, though at other times it is burnt. The visible form of fire or its conjunction with an object cannot be the cause of burning, because a cause is always followed by an effect while the visible form of fire or its conjunction with an object is not at times followed by the effect, viz. burning. Burning, however, being an occasional phenomenon cannot take place without a cause. Thus the inexplicability of the fact of burning consists in the inconsistency between two cognitions, viz. that an effect takes place and that its cause is apparently absent, and this inexplicability leads to the presumption that there is some visible cause of burning, viz. the burning power of fire. Then, why objects are sometimes burnt by fire and sometimes not, becomes fully intelligible on the ground that when the burning power is present burning takes place and it is destroyed, though the visible form of fire is not destroyed, burning does not take place.[17] Here we need not dwell on the arguments for and against power as a distinct category.

In Arthāpatti based on inference the inconsistency lies in an inferred fact and it is illustrated in the presumption of moving power in the sun. It is known through inference that the sun moves. But how can it move. Things possess such limbs as legs etc., but we do not find any such limbs in the case of the sun. Thus there is a conflict between two pramāṇas, viz. that the sun moves and that it possesses no means of motion. This conflict is resolved by the presumption of moving power in the sun.[18]

Arthāpatti based on Upamāna is illustrated thus: Through Upamāna it is known that a cow is similar to a gavaya. But there is some inexplicability involved in this cognition of similarity. How can the cognition of the cow's similarity arise now on the perception of the gavaya and not at the time when the cow was actually perceived for the first time? The similarity of the cow to the gavaya consists in the presence in the former of the universal of the limbs of the latter and these universals were present in the cow even when it was perceived for the first time; but the cow was not then cognised to be similar to gavaya. This conflict it resolved by the presumption of some power in the cow which is manifested by the perception of the counter - correlative and gives rise to the cognition of its similarity to the gavaya.[19]

Arthāpatti based on Arthāpatti is illustrated in the presumption of the eternity of words. A word is heard and then the cognition of the object that is denoted by it arises in the mind. From this it is concluded that the word is the cause of the cognition of the corresponding object. But there can be no cause unless there is some action. Thus some action inhering in the word is inferred and this action is known as 'abhidhā' or denotation. This denotativeness that inheres in the word becomes inexplicable on the ground that when the word was heard for the first time it was not followed by the cognition of the object. The meaning of a word is known only after its relation to the corresponding object is comprehended. But the relation between a word and an object is not found to be of the nature of such usual relations as conjunction, inherence etc. Thus the inexplicability is resolved by the presumption of a peculiar power residing in the word. The relation between a word and an object is of the nature of a power and the meaning of a word is not understood unless this power is apprehended. This is the denotative power of a word. Again the denotative power of a word cannot be possible without the entity of the word. This impossibility leads to the presumption of entity of words. A person orders his servant using the words 'bring the cow' and the servant brings the cow because he understands the meaning of these words, and he understands because

he has already comprehended the denotative powers of the words 'cow ' and 'bring'. The understanding of the meaning of a word 'cow' cannot be explained otherwise than on the ground that the 'cow' uttered by the master and heard by the servant now is the same as was heard by the servant on a past occasion when he comprehended its power of denoting the animal cow. Thus, it is known through Arthāpatti that the word 'cow' is eternal.[20]

Śrutārthāpatti differs from the other kinds of Arthāpatti in respect of its verbal testimony. But the more important difference in it is that the words are presumed while in others some fact is presumed. It is illustrated in the presumption of the sentence 'Caitra eats during the night' on hearing the sentence 'Caitra who is fat does not eat during the day'. The sentence that is heard involves an inner incompatibility because fatness is concomitant not with fasting but with feasting. From Caitra's fatness it is gathered that he must be eating voraciously. But contrarily to what is expected, the other part of the sentence says that he fasts during the day. The meaning of the sentence appears to be self-contradictory. Caitra's fatness cannot be explained unless it is presumed that he eats at night. Thus to remove the inconsistency in the meaning of the heard sentence, the sentence 'he eats at night' is imported. Śrutārthāpatti is the importation of a sentence or word to complete the sense of

a heard sentence. A person utters the word 'water'. The word 'water' does not give a complete meaning and the hearer knowing the context in which the word is uttered completes the sentence by importing the word 'bring'. This is another example of Srutārthāpatti. The fact that Caitra eats during the night without which Caitra's fatness remains inexplicable is not directly denoted by the sentence that is heard, because the heard sentence does not contain such words as 'night' etc. What is directly denoted by the sentence is the fact that Caitra is fat and does not eat during the day. A sentence gives out only one particular sense. Therefore, 'eats at night' is the meaning of a different sentence not uttered by the speaker but presumed by the hearer.[21]

Kumārila holds 'Srutārthāpatti' to be a distinct type knowledge. Kumārila is conscious of his opponents' views advocating its inclusion in other sources of knowledge. But he ignores their criticism and tries to prove the distinctiveness of Srutārthāpatti from other sources of knowledge.

Srutārthāpatti versus perception

Kumārila holds that Srutārthāpatti is not the subject of direct sense-perception because taking meal at night is beyond the range of our vision. It is not even a case of auditory perception because our ears are not capable of grasping an unuttered word of clause.[22]

Śrutārthāpatti versus comparison

The Bhaṭṭas state that Śrutārthāpatti cannot be regarded as a case of comparison, since there is no similarity either between the sentence, which is heard, i.e., 'does not eat in the day' and that which is not heard, i.e., 'eats at night', or between the meanings of these sentences.

Śrutārthāpatti versus verbal testimony

Śrutārthāpatti is the presumption based upon testimony and not the verbal testimony itself. In the usual verbal testimony, the sentence is complete but in Śrutārthāpatti on portion of it is given and another is to be presumed. In the usual verbal testimony, the words which are heard, have the competence to convey the complete sense, but such is not the case with presumption based upon testimony. In the given example that which is heard conveys the nagative meaning, i.e., 'does not eat during the day' and not the positive meaning, i.e., 'eats at night'. Therefore, the knowledge that he takes his food at night is based upon the part of the sentence which is presumed by us.

Śrutārthāpatti versus inference

The presumption of unuttered words is not an inference, since they are known even when the concomitance

is absent.[23] Moreover, it is not possible here to determine the mark. If the sentence 'he eats at night' is the probandum and 'Devadatta who is flabby but does not take his meal during the day' is the probans, then the probans in question does not belong to the subject of inference i.e., the speaker of the sentence, but belongs to such a locus as contains the negation of the probandum and hence it is not an invariable mark. Moreover, he finds here no such property as can be proved by means of the probans in question just as we prove that a hill is fiery because it is smoky. Neither the sentence 'He does not take his meal during the day nor its meaning can constitute the mark which will help us to infer the sentence 'He takes his meal at night'. If the sentence containing the phrase 'at night' is not heard, then how can it be held as belonging to the subject of inference? But if it is heard, there is no need of inferring it. Here, we cannot even hold that the inconsistency inherent in the sentence does not stir our imagination to supplement it by the assumption of another sentence, i.e. 'He takes his meal at night' in order to make it a consistent one.

Kumārila holds that what happens in '<u>Śrutārthāpatti</u>' is that the sentence which is being heard, implies a syntactical relation with its own unheard part. It implies the remaining portion because the sentence which is not

given here, by itself (not having the complete parts) does not convey a consistent meaning. Therefore, the given part of the sentence implies its own remaining part out of grammatical necessity. So, what is presumed here is 'a portion of the sentence' and not the object meant by it.

Kumārila is quite aware of the following objections that could be raised by his opponents against this hypothesis. There is no point in presuming a portion of the sentence since this objective could also be achieved through the presumption of the complementary meaning by the existing meaning. The sentence 'Bulky Devadatta does not eat during the day' could lead to presume the complementary meaning, i.e. natural food, in the same way in which the smoke leads to the inference of fire.[24] Moreover, a portion of the sentence which is presumed is not meant for invisible merit but for understanding the relevant meaning and in that case there is no fault if one holds that the complementary meaning is presumed and not the complementary sentence. In other words, the presumption relates to the fact and not to the clause.[25]

The Bhaṭṭas refute the above objections on the following grounds: A sentence which does not convey a complete meaning but produces an imperfect knowledge of objects is not a source of valid knowledge. Eyes and other sense-organs, revealing only a portion of an object with

which they come in contact, produce valid knowledge, whereas a sentence conveying only a portion of the complete whole in which each of its constituents, i.e., parts of speech, fulfils its duty and tends to convey the meaning of the sentence. These parts do never stop half-way but invariably complete the task of expressing complete meaning of a sentence. A sentence which expresses a complete meaning is a source of knowledge. Such a sentence bears a significant name. Therefore, whenever we hear a portion of a sentence we fill up the gap, supplying the understood portion by our own imagination. How can we get the complete and consistent meaning if the understood portion is not supplied? In many cases the Vedic injunctions are incomplete. By means of presumption based upon testimony, they are made complete. But in these cases if we do not complete the Vedic injunction, which enjoin rites, the latter, being merely implied will not be strictly Vedic. The Vedic mantra (a prayer) which speaks of a kind of ceremony in honour of the departed ancestors (aṣṭaka by name) leads us to assume an injunction which enjoins aṣṭaka. Sometimes, we also assume a complete Vedic injunction on the basis of an incomplete injunction. The Vedic injunction "one should perform Viśvajit sacrifice" is an instance of an incomplete Vedic injunction. The injunction does not contain a word which may denote that the sacrificer is to

get the fruit of the action. In such a case it does not carry the sense which it intends to convey. The object of an injunction is to induce a man to perform the rite prescribed by it. But only a man who is aware of the fruit of the rite and intends to have it, is persuaded to do so. Hence the above injunction should be supplemented by a word '*svargakāmaḥ*' so that the complete injunction should amount to saying that one who is desirous of heaven should perform *Viśvajit* sacrifice. In case of subsidiary rites such as *aindrāgni*, etc., a general hint has only been given by the basic injunction as to their observance. In order to know the details of the rites that make them up, we are to assume some injunction which assert that the subsidiary rites bear a close resemblance to principal rites to which they belong. On the basis of the aforesaid analysis, the Bhātta theory of '*Śrutārthāpatti* could be summed up in the following form:

Śrutārthāpatti is the presumption of an unheard clause with a given sentence, when the sentence involves an inner contradiction and is inexplicable without the presumption of such a clause. It is not only different from other source of knowing but from other type of presumption as well. The proper evaluation of *Śrutārthāpatti* depends upon the appropriate conception of the sentence. It is interesting to note that almost all the arguments of the Bhaṭṭa regarding *Śrutārthāpatti* centre round the

structural and textual dimensions of the sentence. In the stock example of Śrutārthāpatti, i.e., 'Flabby Devadatta does not take his food during the day', the Vedāntins think that the presumption (He takes his food at night) is that of a fact, but the Bhaṭṭas hold it to be a case of the presumption of a clause.[26]

ii. Prabhākara on Arthāpatti

Prabhākara who started another school of Pūrva Mimāṁsa is now supposed to be earlier than Kumārila by a majority of scholars. Prabhākara wrote a commentary named Bṛhatī on Śabara's Bhāṣya. According to Dr. Jha, Prabhākara's interpretation of the Bhāṣya is more faithful than that of Kumārila. But so far as the Tarkapāda section of the Bṛhati is concerned, we cannot subscribe to this opinion. On many occasions he has given forced interpretations and has even twisted the Bhāṣya texts in order to suit his own views. His style is very cumbersome and very difficult to follow without the commentary. Prabhākara, however, was more original thinker than Kumārila and he will always be remembered as the author of a peculiar theory of knowledge known as Triputipratyakṣa vāda or the theory of triple perception and a theory of error known as vivekākhyāti vāda. Prabhākara's work has been commented upon by Salikanātha. Śālikanātha's commentary is known as Ṛjuvimalapañcikā. He also wrote Prakaraṇa

pañcikā which is an independent treatise on the Prabhākara school. Śālikanātha was a first rate scholar like Parathasārathi and the reputation that Prabhākara enjoyed among them was mainly due to him.

In Indian philosophy the distinction between psychology, epistemology and logic is not so rigidly drawn as in western philosophy. I think it necessary, therefore, to begin with a brief consideration of this question. Psychology may be said to deal with nature and sequence of mental processes as they occur. Epistemology deals with the conditions of or grounds on which mental process can lead us to valid knowledge. Logic deals with the formal character of the processes which can give us valid knowledge.[27] It would appear that the relation is very close one, though the province of one system is indistinguishable from one another. Not all mental processes of the cognitive type lead us to valid knowledge, though such processes must be involved in all cases of valid knowledge. It is only when these occur in certain conditions we have valid knowledge. The relation of the processes leading to valid knowledge can be expressed in generalised form and thereby we can get some logical standards of validity.

One may conclude from the above analysis of relations, that the psychology of doubt may under certain conditions lead upto epistemology of doubt. Or, in other

words, we may use doubt as a way of approach to valid knowledge. It is true that this statement sounds like a paradox. For doubt on its very surface is opposed to certain knowledge. One closes the door to action and the other opens it. But if we look to the beginnings of modern western philosophy, we find that the knowledge is opened to us only at the end of a long path of doubt. The process of doubting itself provides the great fact from which Descarts deduced his philosophical truth of the Body-Mind relation, of the primary fact of consciousness, of innate ideas and of the existence of God. Much earlier in India the epistemological possibility of doubt received a distinct recognition in the doctrine of Arthāpatti. Arthāpatti is referred to in Śabara and Kautilya, though for its proper analysis as a form of valid knowledge we have to come down to the time of Pūrva Mimāṁsa.

It is my purpose in this section to discuss the Prabhākara account of the epistemological and logical character Arthāpatti, but before I do that I would indicate the psychological nature of doubt.

The reference to the process of doubt in psychological literature is very scanty. Stout, who devotes a character to the analysis of belief says that doubt belongs to the attitude of belief which he distinguishes from the attitude of supposition. The latter consists

in the free activity of imagination and lacks the important element of objective control of subjective activity. Doubt would have always come to an objective reference. It represents a state of suspense from which relief is sought in the form of transition to belief.

Taking our general stand on this view of Stout, we may attempt a more minute analysis of the processes involved in doubt.

1. It presupposes a previous tendency to belief either on the basis of perception or inference or authority.

2. Then we have some other belief suggested in course of further experience or memory or inference from some other facts or from authority. Psychologically it is possible for this second belief to be motivated by purely emotional factors as we find in neurotic character of the obsessional type. We need not take this source of doubt into our present consideration for the reason that the emotional motives are represented in idealogical terms with which alone we are concerned in epistemology.

3. A momentary state of suspense arises and there is a tendency to reject the first without positively rejecting it altogether.

4. Then comes an activity of the mind in which it moves from one alternative to the other, closely examining their different aspects or calling by specially directed association other ideas in support of the alternatives or even proceeding to new lines of evidence. The activity as a whole is comparable in the general nature to the exploratory manifold activity of the animal in the maze box. It is attendance by a restlessness which seeks relief in finally resolving the doubt in either of three ways 1) Rejection of the second belief and thereby removal of the contradiction implied in the doubt. 2) Rejection of the first belief and thereby removal of the contradiction or 3) Transcending of the contradiction present in the doubt by a third belief.

In the first and second forms of resolution of doubt, the act of doubting serves as a general condition to further processes of cognition for the strengthening of one alternative belief to the other. It cannot be considered, however, a condition in the sense of epistemological ground of valid knowledge, even though it may lead up to such knowledge as the result of the further cognitive processes it inspires. The only right observation that we can make as regards the function of doubt in these two cases is the doubt has sometimes a great motivating value for pursuit of further knowledge.

In the third form of resolution of doubt, it seems to be more positively contributive to new knowledge. In addition to its function as a motivating condition of further knowledge, it may provide a specific ground in the proper epistemological sense for transition to new knowledge. It seems to me that the Prabhākara form of the doctrine of Arthāpatti in Indian Philosophy details this specific epistemological ground.

Kumārila and Prabhākaras, both regard Arthāpatti as a means of knowledge, but they differ in the details regarding the nature and the range of Arthāpatti. Though both the schools depend on Śabara's Bhāṣya regarding Arthāpatti, they interpret it in their own different ways.

According to Prabhākara, presumption involves an element of doubt, the doubt about the truth of two well known facts on account of their mutual conflict. And it is the removal of this doubt which in his view is the specific function of (presumption) Arthāpatti. The recognition of doubt as an element in presumption, further holds, is not only of use in the understanding of the nature and function of Arthāpatti (presumption), but serves the additional purpose of showing that this source of cognition is distinct from inference. As regards the latter point, Prabhākara explains it as follows. In the case of inference, the liṅga (sign or mark) for example smoke, is

such that its existence is beyond doubt, so that from the undoubted perception of smoke one can immediately infer the existence of fire. But the situation is different in the case of presumption in as much as the undoubted perception of Devadatta absence from home, of course, may lead to his unperceived existence somewhere outside his home; but it can do that immediately but only mediately by way of removing the doubt about his being alive.

Kumārila, on the other hand, holds that presumption primarily (and indeed exclusively) involves the conflict (virodha or anupapatti) between two well known facts; so that any additional element such as 'doubt' must be out of place with in the structure of this source of cognition. In any case, the recognition of doubt as an element in presumption is negated as per Kumārila, unlike Prabhākara who supposes it is, in view of the distinction between presumption and inference. Kumārila's reason for this is that this distinction can be very well explained solely with reference to the conflict involved in presumption. With the view to the explanation of the distinction between presumption and inference, it would, in the view of Kumārila, be sufficient to observe that, whereas presumption involves an element of conflict and at the same time is required to resolve the same, inference is free from this element and consequently, does not have the same function to perform as is imposed upon presumption to do. Besides,

the recognition of doubt as an element in presumption, Kumārila observes further that presumption would adversely affect the performance of the proper function on the part of this source of cognition. For if the knowledge or rather information about a fact, for example, Devadatta's being alive, were doubtful, presumption would certainly be left without a sound basis to stand upon. Kumārila thus frees this source of cognition from the additional burden, the burden of doubt which Prābhakara imposed upon it seeks to show that, rid of its complexity, presumption can very well maintain its distinctiveness from that of inference.[28]

Unlike Kumārila, Prabhākara changes the sequence of words in Śabara's definition from "dṛṣṭaḥ śruto vārtho anyathā nopapadyate ityarthakalpanā" to "dṛṣṭaḥ śrutavārtho arthakalpanā aryatha nopapadyate iti" meaning that in Arthāpatti a fact seen or heard is the means of knowing another fact which is inexplicable without the former. Prabhākara begins his discussion with the question as to what anyathānupapati is.[29] According to him, the meaning of Śabara's statement is that Arthāpatti is the presumption of a fact explaining another fact which is otherwise inexplicable. Prabhākara further states that if the phrase 'anyathā nopapadyate' in Śabara's definition Arthāpatti means the impossibility of the existence of a thing without another thing. If this be the case, then Arthāpatti is

nothing but the inference of cause from its effect, because the existence of an effect can be possible without the existence of its cause and thus it ceases to be different or independent pramāṇa.[30] As regards the view that in inference the conclusion is drawn from a well known relation between hetu and sādhya. While in Arthāpatti there is no knowledge of such a relation, Prabhākara rejects this distinction and holds that the cognition inexplicability, i.e. of the fact that this is impossible without that presumption which cannot arise unless we already know the relation between what is explained and what explains it. Inexplicability is not perceptible. It is known when we already know that one thing (effect) is invariably concomitant with another thing (cause), which actually is one of them (see). So, Arthāpatti also would be based on the knowledge of a relation between hetu and sādhya, as in the case of inference. Prabhākara finally asks, what, then, is the distinctive element of Arthāpatti? He answers that in the inference of a cause from its effect, the probans viz. the effect is inexplicable and the cause which is the probandum is what explains it, while in the case of Arthāpatti the probans is that which explains and the probandum is that which remains inexplicable without the supposition of the former. That is, in the case of Anumāna the procedure of thought is from 'anupapanna' to the 'upapādaka', while in the case of Arthāpatti it is from the 'upapādaka' to the 'anupapanna'.[31]

Thus in the view of Prabhākara the exclusive characteristic of Arthāpatti is the knowledge of that which is not explained from a knowledge of that which explains it. Thus in the cited instance of Arthāpatti the fact of Devadatta's non-existence in the house explains the fact of his outside existence.

Prabhākara's view of Arthāpatti is just the reverse of Kumārila's view. Unlike Prabhākara, Kumārila interprets Śabara's definition of Arthāpatti without making any change in the sequence of words in it. Kumārila states that the fact of Devadatta's non-existence in the house by the presumption of his existence outside. Prabhākara's view of Arthāpatti is not consistent with Śabara's view either, because he states that which is to be known through Arthāpatti is unexplained while Śabara says that a seen or heard fact is unexplained and this inexplicability is the means of knowing what explains it. Prabhākara tries to avoid the inconsistency of facts in Śabara's statement by changing the order of words from 'dṛsṭh śtruto vārtho' nyahtā nopapadyate-ityarthakalpanā' to 'dṛsṭah śrutovārthakalpananyatha nopapadyate', which means that in arthāpatti a seen or heard fact is the means of knowing another fact which is inexplicable without the former.[32]

Prabhākara's view seems to be wrong, for the reason that there can be no cognition of the inexplicable from that of which explains. If such be possible, the cognition of 'śimśapāness' from the perception of treeness would be correct, because śimśapāness cannot be explained without treeness....śimśapā cannot be śimśapa unless it is a tree. But as a matter of fact, we cannot say that a tree is śimśapa because it is a tree. Therefore, in Arthāpatti the upapādaka is known from the anupapanna. In the given example what is known is Devadatta's existence outside and it explains his non-existence in the house.[33] Prabhākara says that the known fact of Devadatta's non-existence in the house is not inexplicable. But then there should be no need of presuming his existence outside, because the known fact is supposed to be intelligible by itself. Prabhākara says that Devadatta's existence outside is inexplicable. But the consciousness of the person who does not see Devadatta in the house is really different. When he is aware of Davadatta's absence what he cognises is not that Davadatta's presence outside is inexplicable but that Devadatta is out.[34]

Śālikanātha tries to make Prabhākara's point of view more acceptable in the following way: 'It is not existence outside that remains inexplicable, but it is the existence of Devadatta that remains inexplicable without presuming his stay outside when he is not found in

the house. Inexplicability arises when a fact is opposed to some pramāṇa. Though Devadatta is known to be alive from some pramāṇa, yet it is opposed by the knowledge that he is not present in the house where he is generally seen. This opposition renders to the fact that his being alive is doubtful. There are three steps in the Arthāpatti, viz., first, there is cognition of non-existence in the house, second, this cognition conflicts with the fact of Devadatta's being alive which is thus rendered doubtful, and third, his extence outside is presumed and this presumption removes the doubt. Thus the cause of inexplicability is the cognition of non-existence; that which is inexplicable is the fact of Devadatta's being alive; and which results from the presumption of outside existence is the conviction of Devadatta's being alive.[35] The element that distinguishes Arthāpatti from inference, according to Śalikanatha, is doubt rather than apparent inconsistency. He says that in inference a well-ascertained and undoubtful thing is the producer of cognition, but in Arthāpatti a doubtful thing is the producer of cognition.[36]

Parthasārathi criticises Śālikanātha's view as follows: When Devadatta's life itself has been rendered doubtful, it can never be the ground of his existence outside. How can it be said that since Devadatta is either dead or alive therefore he is outside? When one is in doubt about Devadatta's life, the doubt cannot be removed

by presuming that he is outside. A doubt is removed only when its cause is destroyed or when either of the alternatives is confirmed by a stronger pramāṇa. The cause of doubt in the present case is non-existence in the house. Now, when existence outside is presumed it will only confirm the cause of doubt, viz. non-existence in the house, because of the fact of outside existence is merely a supposition and is not known independently through a stronger pramāṇa like perception or inference. This supposition cannot even confirm anyone of the alternatives. The alternatives are stated in the form 'Devadatta is either alive or dead'. Staying outside is one thing and life or death is a different thing. Arthāpatti based on non-existence in the house cannot remove the doubt. It is absurd to say that because Devadatta is not present in the house, therefore he is outside and alive. Devadatta's life, which was first known as certain, was rendered doubtful because of his non-existence in the house. How can the cause of doubt itself be the cause of its removal? The fact is that Devadatta is already known to be alive beyond any shade of doubt. But if for some reason a person happens to entertain doubt about Devadatta's being alive and wishes to dispel it, then he should first approach some reliable person for the correct information. If he is able to ascertain in this way that Devadatta is alive, then he can

say that because Devadatta is alive and not present in the house therefore he must be out. Thus doubt cannot be the distinguishing factor of Arthāpatti.[37]

According to Kumārila, the words 'dṛṣṭaḥ śrutovā' in the Bhāṣya refer to two kinds of Arthāpatti. But Prabhākara interprets the words as meaning the same thing. 'Dṛṣṭaḥ' means well-known and 'śrutaḥ' is another word meaning the same thing in common usage. Thus, according to Prabhākara, there is no 'Śrutārthāpatti or presumption of a sentence or a word. According to Kumārila the word dṛṣṭaḥ (seen) stands for all the six means of cognition (perception, inference, comparison, verbal testimony, presumption and negation) and the word (heard) śruta refers to the presumption of a fact. Śālikanātha says that what is presumed on hearing the sentence, 'Caitra who is fat does not eat during the day', is the fact of eating at night and not the sentence, 'he eats at night'. The inexplicability that is removed by the presumption consists in the conflict between fatness and fasting and not between the sentences, 'Caitra is fat' and 'He does not eat during the day'. So, the conflict between two facts must be resolved by presuming another fact. Even when the words 'eats at night' are uttered after uttering the sentence 'Caitra who is fat does not eat during the day', the conflict arising in the mind of the person on

hearing the latter sentence is not resolved if he does not know the meaning of the word 'night'. Therefore, a conflict is to be resolved through the presumption of a fact and not of words. It is true that in the care of all who know the use of language determinate cognitions are always accompanied by the memory of words; and accordingly when a person cognises the fact that Caitra eats at night his cognition is verbalised yet this is not an uncommon thing, because even in dṛṣṭārthāpatti the cognition of the presumed fact, i.e. Devadatta's existence outside is, verbalised.[38]

Implicit words also contribute in determining the meaning. If we reflect on the nature of conditions which regulate the meanings of the sentences then we come to know that there are some cases which show that even understood words determine meanings of sentences. For example, there are a few Vedic injunctions which are elliptical in their character. An illustration of this type is viśvajitā yajeta, i.e. a person who intends to enjoy heavenly bliss should perform the sacrifice called viśvajit. In this injunction the compound word śvargakāmaḥ (one who intends to enjoy heavenly bliss) is not given still, the implicit word contributes towards the conveying of the complete meaning of the above injunction.

Sometimes the given words do not even contribute to the meaning. There are also some injunctions in which the given words which are heard are given up since they do not help to convey the complete meanings of these injunctions. An illustration of this type is ubhayam havir ārtim ṛcchet. Here the word ubhayam has been abandoned since it is not capable of expressing the complete meaning of a great Vedic injunction. In connection with the directions of the new moon and the full-moon sacrifices, it has been stated that if both the articles which are to be offered are spoiled, then 'Indra' should be offered five plates of rice. Now, the prima facie view is that an emphasis should be laid upon the adjective ubhayam. But the conclusive view is that even if one of these two articles to be offered is spoiled, the contemporary rite should be observed. Hence the word ubhaya loses its significance since its absence opens up a wider scope. The actual traditional practice is that the word ubhaya should be given up. Thus, it has got no part to play when the meaning of the above two cojoined injunctions is conveyed.

In some cases, no importance is attached to a subordinate clause which does not shape the meaning of the main injunction, i.e. in the Vedic sentence "Prayājśṛṣena haviṁṣyabhidāryati" (i.e. one sprinkles the articles with such clarified butter which remains after the completion

of prayāja sacrifice) the clause prayājaśeṣeṇa refers to the procedure of sacrificing the animal in Vājapeya sacrifice. There is also no ruling as regards the preservation of such clarified butter and the pot which contains it. It is just possible that the sentence, a portion which is not given, may also directly convey a meaning. In that case there is no use of assuming the type of Arthāpatti based upon testimony. As in the so called instances of Arthāpatti based on testimony, the meaning is directly conveyed by the incomplete sentences, so that the intermediate process of supplying the silent portion in order to render the sentence complete is only superfluous.

The only argument that Kumārila offers in favour of Śrutāsthāpatti is the one refuted by Śālikanātha. Kumārila says that all determinate cognitions are accompanied by the memory of words and the cognition resulting from a verbal inconsistency is a determinate cognition.[39] Śālikanātha has exposed the weakness of this argument and Kumārila's commentators admit the point raised by him. Sucaritamiśra offers another argument: It is true that the inconsistency in a heard sentence is primarily an inconsistency in facts and that which is presumed to remove this inconsistency is also primarily a fact, yet the inconsistency of a sentence can be removed only by the presumption of another sentence. An inconsistent sentence is really an incomplete sentence and it can be

completed only by importing another appropriate sentence or word. When someone utters the word '<u>pacati</u>' (cooks) the hearer expects another word, say, '<u>odanam</u>' (rice) and is not satisfied merely with the perception of rice before him. The expectancy is relieved only when the speaker himself adds the word '<u>odanam</u>' (rice) or when, in case he does not add it, the hearer imports it. Similarly when an incomplete sentence stands in need of another sentence, the expectancy thus created can be relieved only by importing that sentence, not merely by presuming the corresponding fact.[40]

The salient features of Kumārila's and Prabhākara's interpretation of Śabara's statements may be stated as follows:

Śabara takes the fact already seen or heard as a single unit. It is the living Devadatta's non-existence in the house, the truth of which is not possible according to Śabara without the assumption of Devadatta's existence outside the house.

Kumārila sees inexplicability between two facts constituting the substance of what Śabara called the fact already seen or heard.

Kumārila is therefore very faithful to the Bhaṣyakāra in fixing the objects of knowledge in <u>Arthāpatti</u> as also

the purpose of Arthāpatti as a pramāṇa. The assumption made is sought to explain another well established fact.

Prabhākara presents a different picture and purpose of Arthāpatti. In his anxiety to distinguish it from Anumāṇa and uphold the independence of Arthāpatti as a pramāṇa, Prabhākara is all out to picturise Arthāpatti as involving or process that is diametrically opposed to that involved in inference. In inference the effect (wetness of the ground) explains its cause (a past rain). According to Prabhākara the movement of thought in Arthāpatti is just the reverse in as much as the probans is that which explains and the probandum is that which is explained. In otherwords in inference, the probans is explained by the probandum as smoke is explained by fire. But in Arthāpatti the probans (non-existence in the house) is explained by the probandum (his existence outside the house). To be clear the assumption of Devadatta's existence outside the house is explained by his non-existence in the house.

Here the probans and the probandum are the same facts. That is the means by which we assume is the probans. That which is assumed by means of probans is the probandum. In either case Devadatta's non-existence is the probans and Devadatta's existence outside the house is the probandum in either case the matter of the presump-

tion remains the same viz. Devadatta's existence outside the house. But the real point of contention between Śabara and Kumārila on one hand and that of Prabhākara on the other is only regarding the purpose or the intention of Arthāpatti. It is only a matter of what explains what or what is explained by what. In simple words to make the distinction between the two schools of Pūrva Mīmāṁsa clear; Kumārila says, "It is the assumption of Devadatta's existence outside the house that explains, he is being alive and not being in the house." On the other hand, according to Prabhākara, Devadatta's being alive and not being in the house that explains he existed outside the house.

The position of Kumārila regarding Arthāpatti is due to Śabara's original view. The contribution of Kumārila is that he sees some inexplicability or conflict in the fact already seen or heard which according to Śabara is something which is not possible or which it is not possible to be maintained in the absence of another assumption. In otherwords Kumārila sees a conflict or contradiction between two facts viz. Devadatta being alive and his being not found in the house. One thing is clear viz. that Kumārila uses certainly a stronger term (inexplicability or conflict or contradiction .....) than the moderate description of Śabara of the situation under

consideration. It is difficult to understand what the inexplicability or conflict is in the matter at hand. Why should there be a conflict at all between the two facts of a man being alive and his not being in the house. To be in the house is not part of man's essential existence of his being alive. It is a common phenomenon that a man's life is spent both in and outside the house. There are merely two aspects of man's existence. Sometimes he is in the house sometimes he is outside the house. Even layman in the street not to speak of logician is bothered about man's non-existence in the house to when he wants to call on him on any particular occassion. If a living man were not to be found on anywhere on physical world there would perhaps occur a state of mental conflict as to how a living man cannot be traced in any part of the physical world. The mere non-existence of the house of a living man is never a sufficient ground to invoke any element of tension or conflict in the inquirer's mind and for this reason Kumārila's discription of the state which is the ground of presumption is only to read too much into things.

If on the otherhand we try to view the situation interms of disjunction, Kumārila's overstress on the epistemological situation of Arthāpatti can be better exposed if we follow the logic of dichotomous division and

classify the entirity of human existence by the mutually exclusive and collectively exhaustive alternatives: A living man must be either in the house or outside the house, the problem looks much more simple and far less serious. As per the logic of valid disjunctive syllogism. If you deny one of the alternatives you are certain to affirm the other.

Here the whole point of the discussion is that Kumārila is unjustified in calling the situation inexplicable in order to resolve which an assumption is warrented. Perhaps Śabara's original exposition of Arthāpatti is more convicing and a better representation of the facts of Arthāpatti. It is so because the assumption a man's existence outside the house is only a logical step or an intellectual necessity on the part of a knowing mind which is only half way through. The assumption under consideration rather fills a gap rather than explaining a conflict or contridiction. It is simply because there is no conflict at all. A state of conflict exists between two opposing facts or phenomena. There is a conflict or a contradiction when we say that fire is cool and water is with flames. What contradiction is there between a living man and his not being in the house?

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In the absence of a conflict or a contradiction the question of which explains what, a point centreing which the two schools of Pūrvamimāṁsa differ from each other does not arise at all. The asumption, on the part of a knowing mind, that a living man exists outside his house after knowing that he is not in his house is neither an explanation offered to the doubts regarding his being alive nor an explanation to one's non-existence in his house. It is simply the completion of a single process of thought.

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I think that is exactly what is in the mind of Prabhākara, when he says that the objective of the Arthāpatti is the knowledge of that which is not explained that the knowledge of that which explains it. Hence in the given instance of Arthāpatti, the fact of Devadatta's non-existence in the house, is what according to Prabhākara, that explains the fact of Devadatta's existence outside. What we mean to say that Prabhākara must have thought over Śabara's original view of Arthāpatti along with Kumārila's interpretation in the way which we have analysed above and presented a more consistent and more convincing explanation of the nature and function of Arthāpatti. First of all, the existence of a conflict or inexplicability does not arise simply because there is no real opposition in the fact already seen or heard and therefore the question of resolving or explaining any such phenomenon does

not arise. Secondly the presumption of something unseen as an attempted reconciliation of an already known object is as futile as groping in the dark for a black cat which is not there.

That Arthāpatti is a knowledge of that which is not explained from the knowledge of that which explains it is only a true representation of the natural process of thought, still preserving its identity as an independent pramāṇa. Though Prabhākara's analysis of the process of Arthāpatti is represented as a process which is the reverse of Kumārila's interpretation, it only rectifies a sort of laboured understanding of the Bhāsyakara and the misrepresentation of the original text of the Bhāṣya. Prabhākara's explanation is pure and simple and that presumption is but natural completion of a process of thought. Herein also lies the unique and distinctive element of Arthāpatti from that of inference. Though Prabhākara is all out to expound Arthāpatti in a way that it distinguishes itself from Anumāna his conclusions ultimately hit the right path. The distinguishing Arthāpatti from that of inference as is evident from Prabhākara's analysis may be summerised as follows. In Arthāpatti the knowledge of a fact seen or heard (which is the ground) involves an intellectual obligation to fulfil the remaining part of thought, in the form of presumption. In the absence

of the presumption the earlier process of thought remains incomplete and halfway through. But in the case of inference as one infers fire from smoke involves a determined effort to account for particular phenomenon. In the absence of any such determined effort an explanation the basis of such inference would be self sufficient and does not remain in any state of inexplicability or confusion. Hence the presumption of something is an inevitable and natural continuation of process and inference is something which we can affored when there is will to do it. This exactly what is in the mind of Prabhākara in his account of Arthāpatti.

B. ARTHĀPATTI: THE CONCEPTION OF ADVAITA VEDĀNTA

Six sources of knowledge (pramānas) are accepted by the Advaitin.[41] They are perception, inference, comparison, verbal testimony, presumption and non-cognition. The Bhaṭṭa Mīmāṁisakas also accept all these six. As a matter of fact, generally the Advaitins follow the Bhaṭṭas in all empirical categories and usages.[42] The Prabhākara Mīmāṁsakas accept only five pramāṇas with presumption while the Bhaṭṭas and the Advaita Vedāntins accept six, adding non-cognition or Anupalabdhi.

The Advaita Vedānta and Mīmāṁsa presumption as a separate source of knowledge because in their opinion it provides us with the knowledge of facts which cannot

be explained otherwise. Mīmāṁsakas frequently use Arthāpatti for examplaining the Vedic texts by presuming missing words and meanings without which the Vedic texts cannot be correctly understood. They also base their beliefs on presumption in such cases as survival of the self after death. The Advaitins hold Arthāpatti useful for explaining the Vedānta texts. For example, the Upanisads sometimes speak of the creation of the world by Brahman and out of Brahman but sometimes they teach that there is no multiplicity and hold that Brahman is the only reality. This conflict is resolved by supposing that creation is not a real transformation (pariṇāma) of Brahman, but only an apparent change (vivarta) like the appearance of a rope as a snake. The supposition of māyā as the power of Brahman to create an apparent world is a kind of presumption. The Advaitins use this method also in assuming some unperceived facts and principles for explaining experienced facts. For example, they suppose the existence of an objectless blissful consciousness during dreamless sleep, in order to explain the memory which we have on rising from such a sleep when we say 'I had a comfortable sleep'.

The Advaita Vedānta as an advocate of the view of presumption as an independent source of cognition, may be said to differ from Prabhākara and be in agreement

with Kumārila in not recognizing 'doubt' as an element in this source of cognition. Even so, be it noted that it understands presumption in a way different from that in which the Mimāṁsā understands it, although it may be that their separate understandings ultimately amount to one and the same thing. The Advaita Vedāntist view of presumption differs from that of the Mimāṁsa in making no mention of such a thing as the conflict between two known facts and consequently, being unconcerned with the idea of the resolution of the conflict of this description, in the view of the Advaita Vedānta, there is only one fact which is said to be well known namely, that something presents itself to be inexplicable or stands unexplained and so is in need of explanation. This points to the function, the performance of which is the very essence of presumption. And the function, according to the Advaita Vedānta, is none other than the framing of an assumption or supposition (Kalpanā) which provides the explanation in demand. Thus presumption is regarded by this school of philosophy as comprising the knowledge of the fact to be explained (Upapādya-jñānaṁ) and the supposition or, let us say, knowledge of something that provides the required explanation (Uyapādakā jñānam). Then by calling the former knowledge kāraṇaṁ (instrumental cause) and the latter phalaṁ (result or effect), the Vedānta arrives at the definition of presumption as the

framing of an explanatory hypothesis (Upapādaka kalpanam) on the basis of the knowledge of the fact to be explained (Upapādya-jñānam).[43] The fact that a person is fat, though he does not eat during the day, cannot be intelligible unless he eats at night. The fatness of the person is to be explained and eating at night explains it. The inexplicability of fatness in the absence of eating in the day is removed by the presumption of eating at night. Like Kumārila, Dharmarāja also distinguishes between two kinds of Arthāpatti, viz. Dṛṣṭārthāpatti and Śrutārthāpatti. A man observes that there is silver in front of him and immediately afterwards he observes that there is no silver at all. The second cognition denies the presence of silver. But the denial cannot be explained if the first cognition 'there is silver' be true. Therefore, it is presumed that the first cognition was false. The perception of silver is a fact and the non-perception of it also is a fact. The fact of non-perception becomes inexplicable, if the silver perceived at first be real. This inexplicability is removed when it is presumed that the silver was unreal or illusory. This is an example of Dṛṣṭārthāpatti.

This seems to indicate that the Advaita Vedānta makes an improvement upon the position of the Mīmāṁsa in so far as it presents presumption (Arthāpatti) in a clearer

scientific light by regarding it as the framing of explanatory hypothesis instead of as a source of cognition in the ordinary sense. Thus the situation, for example, that a person who desists from eating during day time is still stout (pīna) is, the view of the Advaita Vedānta, one which primarily calls for an explanation, instead of the acquisition of the knowledge of something or other. And the explanation in demand, as is held by this school of philosophy, is to be found in a hypothesis which is likely to be that the person concerned eats at night.

It would be worthwhile to mention, however, the Advaita Vedānta has made an attempt to enquire into the various situations which call for their explanation and has, accordingly, come to admit several kinds of presumption (Arthāpatti). Arthāpatti is of two kinds: a) postulation from the perceived (Dṛṣṭārthāpatti) and b) postulation from the verbal cognised (Śrutārthāpatti).

The first kind can be illustrated from the instance of the illusory silver. One sees the shell as silver. The cognition now is "This is silver". The illusion is sublated by the subsequent cognition of the locus, the shell. The sublation is of the form "This is not silver", contradicting the earlier cognition "This is not silver" will be quite unintelligible, if the silver in "This is silver" were real. So, one has to presume that the silver is not real but illusory.

The second variety of postulation occurs as follows: A sentence is heard. Now, the own sense of this sentence itself is unintelligible. Therefore, there has to be postulated some other sense to make the sentence intelligible. For example, there is the statement in the Chāndogya Upanisad: "He who knows the self, crosses sorrow".[44] This declaration is unintelligble in its own sense. For, self is known, and this knowledge cannot remove the entire host of bonds or fetters signified by the word "Sorrow" - knowledge can remove only error. To make the sense of the declaration intelligible, bondage which is sorrow, is taken to be illusory. Thus, the postulation here is with reference to illusoriness. Even in empirical statements like "Devadatta who will live to be a hundred is not at home", his existence somewhere outside his home is postulated.

This postulation from the verbal cognition (Śrutārthāpatti) is again of two kinds, viz., one which is due to the failure on the part of a speaker to make a grammatically complete statement (abhidhānānupapatti) and one which is due to the unitelligibility of the meaning of a gramatically complete statement (abhihithānupapatti).

When a part of sentence is expressed, there may be the unintelligibility of expressing and syntactical

relation. In that case, we have to postulate a word which will complete the syntactical relation. For example, the word 'door' as a part of a sentence may not have intelligible syntactical relation. It must then be supposed that the word 'door' as a part of a sentence may not have intelligible syntactical relation. It must then be supposed that the word 'door' stands in a syntactical relation to the word 'close', and the sentence will be 'closed door'. For another example, in scripture, rites are prescribed to the one who desires heaven , as 'He who desires heaven is to sacrifice with Jyotiṣṭoma'. Sometimes the fruit is not explicitly stated. In those cases, a fruit has to be postulated.[45]

With regard to the non-intelligibility of the expressed, when a sense of a sentence is unintelligible, another sense has to be postulated. For example : 'He who desires heaven is to sacrifice with the Jyotiṣṭoma'. Here as the Jyotiṣṭoma sacrifice, being momentary, cannot be instrumental to the attainment of heaven, there is postulation an unseen potency, called apūrva, as intermediary.[46]

We may give a common example of postulation to explain the incongruity of meaning in a statement. The sentence 'The camel is the ship of the desert' is meaningless if the word 'ship' is taken in its primary sense, e.g. 'a vessel to navigate in the sea'. It is by the assumption

of its secondary or figurative meaning, such as 'a means of transportation', that we find the significance of the statement.

The Vedāntic account of Arthāpatti differs from Bhāṭṭa in three main respects: 1) Dharmarāja does not specify the cause of inexplicability while according to Bhāṭṭa apparent contradiction is the cause. In most of the examples of Arthāpatti given by Dharmarāja we find that an element of contradiction is involved. But in the example of the first kind of Śrutārthāpatti [47] we do not find any contradiction, though inexplicability or unintelligibility exists. According to the Bhāṭṭa too, importation of a word in order to complete a sentence is an instance of Śrutārthāpatti; and hence according to the rule that apparent contradiction is the instrumental cause of presumption, we should expect apparent contradiction here also. But actually there is no contradiction of any sort here. There is contradiction when a known fact conflicts with our post general experience, i.e., when what happens is opposed to what we expect to happen according to our past experience. But when someone utters the word 'dvāram' (door) there is nothing which happens to conflict with our past experience. What we expect is that the speaker should speak something more while he does not speak more. It would involve contradiction if we expected one

additional word appropriate in the contract and the speaker uttered a different word. For example, if the speaker says 'close the door' when it is too hot inside, the sentence gives rise to a conflict because the word 'close' cannot be expected in the situation. Of course, in a way the utterance of the word '<u>dvāram</u>' (door) also produces conflict in so far as the hearer does not know for the time being whether he should close the door or see it or break it. But this is not a conflict between two cognitions or facts, because it occurs between two or more subjective responses of the hearer aroused by the word '<u>dvāram</u>', while the word itself is not one of the conflicting parties. Therefore, the unintelligibility caused by the utterance of the word '<u>dvāram</u>' is not due to its incompatibility with our experience, but due to the failure on the part of the speaker to express his intention fully. The presumption of the word '<u>pidhehi</u>' in this case is like framing an hypothesis, and the situation that it seeks to explain is far more complex than the mere utterance of the word '<u>dvāram</u>'. The hearer presumes the appropriate word not merely on hearing the word '<u>dvāram</u>' but also on perceiving the other details, e.g. the existing state of the door, the weather etc.

2) The contradiction in the example of <u>Dṛṣṭārthāpatti</u> is between two specific cognitions, viz. 'this is silver' and 'this is not silver' and it is no apparent but real

because the two cognitions cannot be simultaneously true. This seems to be inconsistent with the Bhāṭṭa view. According to the Bhāṭṭa view a contradiction can be reconciled through presumption only when one of the conflicting cognitions is general and the other specific, in which case the contradiction is merely apparent. The Bhāṭṭa view that a real contradiction cannot be reconciled seems to be true because the term 'reconciliation' implies that the claim of the conflicting cognitions to be true is justified through presumption, while in the case of real contradiction one of the cognitions is really false and hence its claim to be true can never be justified. Thus there can be no reconciliation in the proper sense between the cognitions 'this is silver' and 'this is not silver' through the presumption that the first one is false. However, it is wrong to say that the contradiction which leads to presumption lies between two cognitions. The contradiction which is reconciliable primarily lies not between two cognitions but between a fact and our general experience or between two facts who co-existence seems to be inexplicable. The fact that living Caitra is not present in the house is inconsistent with my general experience that he was found in the house whenever I went to see him. This inconsistency is not logical but psychological. In Dharmarāja's example of Dṛṣṭārthāpatti the contradiction

lies between the facts that silver is perceived from a distance and that on making a closer approach it is not found where it was perceived; and this contradiction is reconciled by presuming that what was perceived from a distance was not real but illusory silver, because if it were to be real it could not have disappeared so soon without any visible cause. This co-existence of silver and no silver is inexplicable otherwise than on the presumption of the illusory nature of silver.

3) In Śrutārthāpatti, according to the Bhāṭṭa view, there is always the presumption of a word or sentence, while according to the Vedānta view there is sometimes the presumption of a word and sometimes the presumption of a fact. In the Vedānta view there is sometimes the presumption of a word and sometimes the presumption of a fact. The Vedānta view seems to be a compromise between the Bhāṭṭa and Prābhākara views when a person utters a grammatically incomplete sentence, i.e. a sentence in which the subject or the object or the verb is missing, the hearer always presumes a word or words. It is true that the incompleteness of the sentence is detected by understanding the fact to which the sentence refers, for example one who hears the word 'dvāram' discovers that the speaker's statement is incomplete only when he understands the situation that the weather is cold and the door is

open. But then the incompleteness is not removed simply by presuming the fact that the door is to be closed. Suppose the speaker utters the word 'door' and makes a gesture to close it or utters the word 'close' and points with his finger towards the door. Yet the expectancy created in the mind of the hearer is not relieved unless the required word is uttered. We actually find that sometimes the hearer himself utters involuntarily the word or words left unuttered by the speaker. This fact favours the Vedānta view. On hearing the word '<u>dvāram</u>' the hearer closed the door, but at the same time he feels that the speaker ought to have spoken the complete sentence '<u>dvāram-pidhehi</u>', and thus he himself supplies the word '<u>pidhehi</u>'. When, however, a sentence is gramatically complete but the sense involves some inconsistency, it is not a word that is presumed but some fact. A man says that Devadatta is fat and does not eat during the day. The statement is grammatically complete. But the hearer who presumes that Devadatta eats at night does not feel that the speaker ought to have spoken the clause 'Devadatta eats at night' in addition. Devadatta's eating at night is really a fact implied in his fatness in the absence of eating during the day. The speaker himself may be ignorant of his implication. How can then the hearer feel that the speaker has missed to utter the said clause? Hence it is more reasonable to say that the object of <u>Arthāpatti</u> in the

present case is a fact rather than a clause. This type of Arthāpatti is equivalent to drawing the implication of a statement. Thus the Vedānta view of Śrutārthāpatti is more reasonable than the Bhāṭṭa and Prābhakara views. Abhidhānānupapatti leads to the presumption of the word which together with the actually uttered word forms a complete statement; and abhihitānupapatti leads to the presumption of a fact which resolves the conflict in the sense of an already complete statement.

Dharmarāja establishes that Arthāpatti cannot be included in inference. The Advaitins hold that in inference, our knowledge is based on pervasion of co-presence alone, anvaya, i.e., universal concomitance between the middle and the major term. When Arthāpatti is reduced to an inferential form, the major premise of such an inference will express only the universal relation between the absence of the major term and the absence of the middle term. The relation will be vyatirekavyāpti, and not anvaya-vyāpti. And Advaitins do not accept vyatireki or merely negative inference. For example, in the syllogism "Earth is different from the other elements, because it possesses odour", the vyapti or pervasion is negative in the form "whatever is not different from the other elements has no odour". But it cannot be said positively that "whatever has odour is different from the other elements, exists

in it or not". So the inferential character of kevala vyatireki is not accepted by Advaitins.[48] Here, in the case mentioned, the major premise will be "The absence of eating at night while fasting by day in a case of the absence of stoutness".[49] For reasons stated above, this Vyatireki type of inference is not admissible to the Advaitin. According to him, Vyatireki type of inference can only indicate an unintelligibility thus calling for a postulation. In the example of the earth, it is thus: earth could not intelligibly possess a quality not present in other elements, without being different from those elements. In the case of Devadatta, Devadatta cannot intelligibly be stout while not eating at daytime without eating at night.[50]

Thus, Arthāpatti is a distinct pramāṇa, standing in its own right and supplying a specific need in knowledge.

We may formulate the Advaita standpoint thus: Since it could be demonstrated that all empirical experience is relative and finite, we are justified in postulating the Absolute. Since no relation other than that of non-difference is tenable between subject and object and the different objects of cognition 'non-difference' can be postulated. This is not the same as the argument from the idea of the Absolute to its existence. Here it is

argued that since we experience the finite and the relative and find it to be not self-existent, the Absolute is postulated in order to understand it. But Arthāpatti cannot tell us the nature of the Absolute; that should be known only from the Veda. Arthāpatti is an exercise of reason, they do not reckon it to be inferential reasoning.

The Vedāntins themselves used Arthāpatti not simply for explaining facts of finite experience like the stoutness of a man who does not eat during the day or the absence of Devadatta from home, but also for arriving at philosophical categories like that of power or Śakti. Their main argument in that may be stated thus; Something, as e.g. germ growing into a tree or Jyotistoma sacrifice leading to heaven, would be unexplained (or anupapanna) if there were no supposition of power. Dr. Seal is reported to have said that the difference of the general philosophical position between Hume and Kant may be said to rest on the application of an Arthāpatti. Over against fact of finite experience as obtained through series of sense impressions stands such general notions as causality. The element of contradiction involved is sought to be removed by Hume by rejection of ontological validity of the general notions. In the same situation Kant on the other hand proceeds to reason on the line of Arthāpatti. Accepting the validity of both discrete sense elements and of general notions he comes to his transcendental

deductions. The line of procedure is analogous to that in Arthāpatti. From the consequent to the only possible antecedent without which it cannot be explained. We have stated that the conclusion in Arthāpatti is a function of the nature of the partial contradictories in mutual relation. It is interesting, therefore, to enquire how would Kant's transcendental implication stand modified if the facts were regarded in other than human tradition of absolute difference of body and mind. The objective idealism of Hegel can be said to be the result of an Arthāpatti in which the basic facts of the arguments have been so changed.[51]

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4. Śabara Bhāsya, by Śabara, 1.1.5, Ślokavārthikā, Sāstradīpika and Prakarana - Pancika on Arthāpatti; The Six ways of knowing by D.M. Datta.
   It is difficult to find an exact word in English for Arthāpatti. Postulation in Kantian sense has a close similarity to Arthāpatti. A demand for explanation *underlies the use of this method; and 'postulate'* in Latin means 'demand'.
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35. Rjuvimala of Sālikanātha, Pp. 112-113.

36. Prakarana pancikā of Sālikanātha (Chowkhamba), P.115.

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38. Prakarana pancikā of Sālikanātha (Chowkhamba), P.117.

39. Ślokavārthikā of Kumārila (Chowkhamba) Arthāpatti, P.78.

40. Kāsikā of Sucaritamisra (Trivandrum) on Ślokavārthikā of Kumārila (Chowkhamba), Arthāpatti, P.78.

41. tānipramānāni sat, pratyaksānumānopamāna sabalartha-pattyanupalobdhibedat, Vedānta Paribhāsa, P.6.

42. Vyovahara bhattanayah.

43. Vide-Vedānta-Paribhāsa; Chapter on Arthāpatti.

44. Ibid VII. 1.3.

45. Vedānta-Paribhāsa, P.92.

46. Ibid, Ch.V.

47. Vedānta-Paribhāsa of Dharmarajadhvarindra, Ch.V.

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Advaitins hold that no inference can take place through the absence of the probans where the probandum to be proved in non-existent. They insist on positive experience.

49. Six ways of Knowing, Datta, D.M. P.233.

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